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The Rise of Coastal and Marine Tourism

Marc L. Miller

School of Marine Affairs, College of Ocean and Fishery Sciences,
University of Washington, 98195, USA

ABSTRACT

Marine tourism has surfaced as a pressing topic in the field of ocean and coastal management. Neither necessarily good, nor bad, this tourism is inherently controversial. Today, demand for travel exhibits greater variation and magnitude than ever in history. In response, the tourism industry has become the largest business on earth. This, coupled with the respect people profess for marine environments and local peoples, creates feelings of ambivalence for the tourist. Sociologically, the activity of tourism may be studied as a symbolic interaction fostering social solidarity. Ecotourism, a recent phenomenon attuned to the ideal of sustainable development, is suggested to emerge through the social construction processes of restoration and enhancement. The papers in this theme volume add fuel to the proposition that the resolution of tourism problems in the coastal zone will require the scientific study of environmental and social conditions, policy analyses, planning, and public education.

1 INTRODUCTION

We had good treatment there, met charming people, did good and bad things, and left with reluctance.

— log of John Steinbeck & E. F. Ricketts, 1951 (1941) p. 248 after a brief visit to Guaymas, Mexico

There is no shortage of reasons why researchers and the public alike find it so difficult to examine and evaluate tourism. Several, however, will suffice to illustrate the point. First, tourism is operationally

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ambiguous. On the one hand, it denotes an enormous and fragmented global industry providing a wide range of services and products to tourists as well as non-tourists. Widespread agreement is lacking, however, about how to measure the degree to which businesses are tourism dependent. On the other hand, the term is also commonly employed to mean travel for pleasure. Because this tourism is hard to separate from other categories of leisure (e.g., play, sport, outdoor, and other recreation), substantial differences remain among researchers as to how to determine when individuals are behaving as tourists.

Second, tourism is omnipresent, directly or indirectly involving a huge number of people around the world. Because tourism is easily undertaken and witnessed, it is especially tempting for all of those on the scene to regard themselves as expert analysts and judges. In fact, systematic tourism studies are relatively uncommon and the magnitude and significance of touristic phenomena are frequently subject to both under- and over-estimation by the casual observer.

Finally, tourism in a hypermodern and multicultural world is morally problematic. Quite simply, the many varied benefits and costs of tourism—and the extent to which these are considered acceptable—exist in the eye of the beholder. Debates over tourism raise fundamental, often irreconcilable, differences of political ideology, economics, values, and ethics.

Tourism, then, is unpredictable, inherently controversial, and utterly social. It should come, therefore, as no surprise that our understandings and opinions of it are so maddeningly ephemeral.

2 TOURISM AND MARINE AFFAIRS

In the US, government and academic interest in tourism has been low and sporadic. Tourism is dominantly driven by the private sector—to wit, the vast majority of the shorelands in the nation's 48 contiguous states are controlled by private interests (Ditton & Miller, 1986, p. 237)—and mandates to shape tourism policies have been generally uncoordinated and lightly funded throughout federal, state, and local public bureaucracies. In academe, tourism is hardly a traditional field. Tourism departments are few and the faculty who do specialize in the area are housed in professional programs as varied as landscape architecture, urban planning, parks and recreation, forestry, hospitality, and the like.

Until a short time ago, the enigmas of tourism were only occasionally analyzed within the realm of marine affairs. Tourism issues in the ocean and shoreline settings received far less attention than, for example,

problems linked to coastal zone management, living marine resources, offshore oil and gas exploration, ocean shipping, port management, and wetlands restoration.

Today, there is mounting evidence that this policy and intellectual neglect of marine tourism is coming to an end. Marine policy and management journals appropriately report on topics deemed important by subgovernment and issue network configurations of executive bureaus, congressional committees, and interest groups (Miller & Broches, 1989). Over the last decade, coastal and marine tourism issues—which have much in common with multiple-use and congestion conflicts traditionally faced by natural resource managers and planners—have suddenly and simultaneously become salient in the 'real world' of politics and commerce, and in the academic world of policy scholarship.

This special issue of *Ocean and Coastal Management* builds upon work by many authors collected in several recent thematic publications—the two-volume *Proceedings of the 1990 Congress on Coastal and Marine Tourism* (Miller & Auyong [eds.], 1991) and coordinated issues of the *Coastal Zone Management Journal* (Miller & Ditton [eds.], 1986 and *Leisure Sciences* (Ditton & Miller [eds.], 1986). The *Proceedings* chronicled Honolulu meetings (formally, the 'Congress on Coastal and Marine Tourism: A Symposium and Workshop on Balancing Conservation and Economic Development') which involved nearly 100 presentations by representatives of 31 countries and territories. This well-attended event brought the thinking of ocean scientists, policymakers, entrepreneurs, environmental and community activists, and a variegated audience to converge on tourism dilemmas, causes, and solutions (Miller & Auyong, 1991*b*). The *Coastal Zone Management Journal* and *Leisure Sciences* volumes encouraged rather distinct readerships to jointly focus on 'Leisure in the Coastal Zone'.

In the opinion of all those who have contributed to this special issue, the rise of coastal and marine tourism as a scientific and policy speciality is entirely warranted by contemporary world conditions. Growing environmentalism,[1] coupled with a realization that people are traveling as never before, compels the conclusion that the positive and negative effects of tourism on marine environments and societies are too potent to ignore.[2]

3 PERSPECTIVES ON COASTAL AND MARINE TOURISM

The processes of coastal and marine tourism are provocative as objects of informal reflection, and of formal inquiry. In the first instance, tourism is observed from the point of view of those who experience it

(whether directly as a tourist, a tourism provider or manager, or a local resident; or indirectly as a world citizen). This is termed here the *popular view*. In the second instance, tourism holds interest for the analyst intent on documenting the sociological profile of tourism. This is the *sociological view*.[3] These two views prepare us in complementary fashions to contemplate coastal and marine tourism.

3.1 The popular view

To many, the image of coastal and marine tourism is at one and the same time unsettling, yet attractive. The profound ambivalence that we feel seems to hold whether we consider tourism as an industry or as a leisure option available to individuals.[4]

3.1.1 *Tourism as business*

If one spends any time pondering the range of businesses encompassed in the global tourist industry—the full array of transportation, accommodation, food, entertainment, information, and retail enterprises boggles the mind[5]—it is impossible not to be impressed by the size and Byzantine nature of the assemblage. Indeed, the facts match the impression. Tourism has for some time qualified as the world's largest business and promises to maintain this status well into the future (Waters, 1990, p. 9).[6]

The most recent tourism statistics are astounding.[7] The World Travel and Tourism Council's (WTTC) economic report for 1992 estimated tourism's gross output (i.e. worldwide spending for tourism services including domestic and international travel) for 1990 at $2·9 trillion,[8] representing 12·3% of the world's consumer spending and associated with the creation of 5·7 million jobs (6·5% of the global workforce). Elements of the industry invested $351 billion ($10^9$) of new capital in 1990, accounting for 6·7% of worldwide capital investment. This will create $276 billion in new gross output and 11 million new jobs (WTTC cited in Waters, 1992, p. 11).[9]

According to the World Tourism Organization (WTO), world international arrivals for 1991 declined by 1·4% from the previous year to total 448,545 thousand. Even so, the average annual growth rate between 1986 and 1991 was 5·64%. International tourism receipts for 1991 increased 2·3% over 1990 to reach $260 763 million. For the 1986–1991 period, the average annual growth rate was measured at 13·24% (WTO cited in Waters, 1992, p. 6–7).

As the twenty-first century approaches, there is every indication that tourism will continue to be a leading industry for coastal states.[10]

Looking to the Pacific Ocean, Pacific Asia Travel Association (PATA) statistics reveal that visitor arrivals in PATA member countries more than doubled from 21·4 million in 1980 to 47·3 million in 1990, making the region the world leader in tourism growth rate for the decade (PATA cited in Waters, 1992, p. 123). Although the annual number of tourists who visited Hawaii has fallen off in the last 2 years,[11] the visitor count and visitor spending figures in 1990 (6·971 million visitors and $9·41 million) more than doubled the 1980 numbers (3·934 million visitors and $2·875 million; Waters, 1991, p. 123). In the Caribbean, stayover tourist arrivals have grown from 8·462 million in 1986 to 11·842 million in 1990 (Caribbean Tourism Research and Development Centre cited in Waters, 1992, p. 85).[12]

Given the historical propensity of natural seashore environments to universally arouse artistic and aesthetic sensitivities, it is to be expected that industry statistics of these magnitudes would be shocking. Each of us has favorite, if sad, examples of the architectural and profit excesses and the unacceptable cultural and ecological costs of coastal and marine tourism. However, and with the exception of those who endorse the radical position that the tourism industry is categorically immoral and that tourism services should as a matter of social policy not be provided at all, we can also cite counter-examples from our own experience where businesses have more than adequately done their job of serving tourists without jeopardizing (in some instances, by proactively underwriting) environmental and social programs.

Unfortunately, it is often convenient to neglect to specify how our values and assumptions influence these assessments. It has been easier to isolate and impeach a vaguely defined 'tourism industry' in tabloid fashion than it has been to thoroughly dissect and correct the underlying problems of human population growth and relocation, investment practices, urbanization, and the like.

3.1.2 *Tourism as pleasure travel*

Our ambivalence about tourism becomes more acute when we interpret the construct as an activity—the pursuit of travel, especially for pleasure. We can rather easily conjure up the personal satisfactions we have experienced on, say, a seashore vacation, an ocean cruise, an archipelagic expedition, or a sojourn to a coastal village, port, or resort. Just as quickly, however, we are reminded of other tourists who have, as a result of either their sheer quantity or the quality of their behavior, ruined parts of the same trips.

Thus it is that we routinely denounce the touristic motivations and choices of others one moment, and then self-righteously implement our

own tourism plans the next. Our internal discomfort with this discrepancy is revealed when we admit that we enjoy tourism the most when we are successful in avoiding the tourist label.[13]

3.2 The sociological view

Clearly, tourism is 'real' to the consumer, otherwise, tourism experiences could not be successfully marketed. Tourism meets demands tourists have for recreational, educational, and instrumental contrasts not met at home (Miller & Ditton, 1986, pp. 11–12). But, what of the significance of tourism to social scientists?

Tourism inspires social scientists to be curious, not ambivalent. Miller & Auyong (1991*a*, pp. 76–77) have pointed out that the people who are party to tourism involve *tourists*, *locals* (those who reside in the region of tourism destinations, but are unconnected to the tourism industry), and two categories of *brokers* (those in the private sector who are engaged in the business of tourism, and those in the public sector who in one way or another monitor, manage, or govern tourism).

This broker-local-tourist (BLT) tourism system can be inspected for its *intermodal* and *intramodal* dynamics. Studies which primarily address intermodal questions focus on how people behaving in the tourist mode interact with those in the local and broker modes. The framework finds wide application in cross-cultural tourism research.[14] Intramodal research, by contrast, is more interested in the group sociology of tourists, brokers, or locals, *per se*.

In the practice of research, the two orientations overlap. Some awareness of intramodal conditions is a prerequisite, for example, for successful intermodal analyses of tourism-induced changes in quality of life, cross-modal transitions (e.g. the transformation of locals and tourists into brokers),[15] and other topics encountered under the rubric of social change.

From a sociological perspective, tourism offers a particularly accessible and friendly industry and field of social interaction for sociological inquiry. Tourism *qua* business implies interest in the conduct of brokers and falls within the academic purview of sociologists (some of whom are in business schools) with expertise in the study of the behavior of firms and corporations. The tourism industry can be studied, in whole or in part, as have other institutions and modern organizations in the private and public sector, for its structural character and its social causes and consequences.

The facts of tourism *qua* pleasure travel arise through the deliberate actions of tourists. At the microtheoretical level, the vast set of

individual tourism situations in which people interact helps hold the society of tourists together.[16] Seen from a Durkheimian perspective, tourism provides (as do many other social processes such as friendship, kinship, love, and eduation) a basis and reinforcement for group membership and social solidarity.[17]

While it is true enough that tourism is a state of mind (Jekle, 1985, p. 1), sociologists would tend to reformulate the proposition so that tourism is a state of social interaction. Symbolic interactionism is a branch of sociology which stresses the meaning that things have for human beings, rather than the isolation of categories of behavior and the factors (e.g. social position, social roles, norms, values, group affiliation) regarded as producing these (Blumer, 1969, p. 3).[18] Influenced by W. I. Thomas's (Thomas & Thomas, 1928, p. 572) dictum 'If men define situations as real, they are real in their consequences', and pragmatist George Herbert Mead's componential view of the self,[19] Blumer (1969, p. 66) has encouraged study of how people actively interpret the social circumstances in which they find themselves, and how they convey to others how they are to act. It is with this background that sociologists would say that tourism is socially constructed and that the construction process is interesting as an object of study.

4 ECOTOURISM

Over the last several decades, the tourism industry has begun to market, and selected tourists have come to espouse, the concept of ecotourism and its coastal and marine variant (Miller, 1991, pp. 4, 5, 7; Miller & Auyong, 1991*b*, pp. 78, 94–5; Grenier *et al.*, in press). The origins of ecotourism and its sociological significance merit discussion.

4.1 The rise of ecotourism

Ecotourism dates to 1965 when Hetzer called for a rethinking of culture, education, and tourism, and promoted 'an ecological tourism' ('eco-tourism'). Today, ecotourism has international currency as a concept grounded in preservation-conservation and sustainable development ideals. As the term has come to be employed, it evokes a host of near-synonyms. Valentine (1991, p. 476) reports that ecotourism

is recast in the literature as 'adventure tourism,' 'nature-oriented tourism,' 'alternative tourism,' 'appropriate tourism,' 'soft tourism' (*tourisme doux*), 'responsible tourism,' 'ethical tourism,' 'environment-friendly travel,' 'green tourism,' 'sustainable tourism,' and 'nature tourism.' One could extend this list by citing or manufacturing other alternatives or special cases: 'equality tourism,' 'ethnic tourism,' 'cultural tourism,' 'socio-ecological tourism,' 'photo-safari tourism,' 'dive tourism,' and 'surfing tourism' come to mind.

Ecotourism has been technically defined in many ways—as an activity of tourists, as a private enterprise or government service, and as a guide for ethical conduct. For Hetzer (1965), responsible 'eco-tourism' is measured against four standards:

1. minimum environmental impact;
2. minimum impact on—and maximum respect for—host cultures;
3. maximum economic benefits to host country's 'grassroots;' and
4. maximum 're-creational' satisfaction to participating tourists.

The Ecotourism Society—a non-profit organization founded in 1990 to serve tour operators, conservation professionals, protected area management specialists, researchers, and guides, among others—defines ecotourism as 'responsible travel that conserves the environment and sustains the well-being of local people.'

There is as yet no standardized method of quantifying the amount of tourism which is ecotourism. Bangs (1992, p. 37) notes that while generic tourism has been expanding at roughly 4% annually, ecotourism is growing at a rate of 30%. Lindberg (1991, p. 5) reports that nature-based tourism contributed between $2 and $12 billion in 1988 to the economies of developing nations.

Ecotourism, like all tourism, is by nature controversial. Yet, compared to other industries, ecotourism is potentially compatible with the ideal of *sustainable development* so influentially endorsed in *The Brundtland Report* (World Commission on Environment and Development, 1987). Guidelines for ecotourists and ecotourism providers, and 1992 conferences addressing ecotourism are discussed in Grenier *et al.* (in press) and Miller & Kaae (in press).

4.2 The social construction of ecotourism

Originally employed for a class of travel considerably more economical, if less refining, than the Grand Tours of the mid-eighteenth century, the

term 'tourist' expanded to find application in all of leisure travel. At least since World War II, the activity of tourism has become morally suspect on ideological, aesthetic, and other grounds. The result is that the image of tourism today—and the tourist role—may be said to be somewhat spoiled, or tainted. This vulnerability to stigmatization is closely tied to touristic ambivalence.

Because tourism entails experimentation, it is inevitable that tourists will commit *faux pas* of local etiquette. Many tourist mistakes are ignored, or quickly forgiven, if they are noticed at all. Others are not. When observers (whether locals or tourists) infer, for example, that a particular behavior would not have occurred in the tourist's home territory, the conclusion that the tourist 'should have known better' invites the label of 'ugly tourism.'[20]

With this background, the emergence of ecotourism may be interpreted as a social construction of environmentalists with travel ambitions and tourism entrepeneurs to repair the tarnished image of tourism. At the microsociological level of face-to-face interaction, this is hypothesized to transpire by restoration, enhancement, or a combination of both. These processes are profiled below.

4.2.1 *Restoration*

Restorations are strategies in everyday interpersonal relations which are implemented to repair a damaged identity or image. *Accounts* are a species of restorations covering situations where one accepts responsibility for an action, but denies any pejorative quality (Scott & Lyman, 1968).[21] Two means of making restorations—*denial of inquiry* and *appeal to a* (higher) *loyalty* (Sykes & Matza, 1957)—are effective in the neutralization of tourism.[22] With the former, the act or motive of tourism becomes morally clean because it is asserted that neither the environment nor local peoples are harmed. With the latter, tourism is legitimated on the grounds that the tourist is participating in a compaign of, say, sustainable development or environmental protection. It is argued, moreover, that tourism better serves these ends than do alternative industries. With both techniques, tourism is re-labelled as ecotourism.

4.2.2 *Enhancement*

Enhancements differ from restorations in that the spoiled action at issue is not merely neutralized, but more completely transformed into a virtue. For this to happen, tourists and tourism providers behave in an opposite way from the moral entrepreneurs Becker (1963) describes as responsible for the social construction of deviance. Rather than

identifying vices and wrongdoing, moral entrepreneurs exemplify 'rightdoing' in tourism and promote the virtual exemplar of ecotourism.[23]

In passing, it should be noted that this brief discussion of how ecotourism can arise through the processes of restoration and enhancement is general and largely speculative. Certainly, much more empirical work is needed before any sharp conclusions can be drawn about ecotourism's social construction. Ecotourism is an attractive ideal, but it remains to be seen whether or not it is viable enough to adequately maintain or improve natural and social conditions.

5 PAPERS IN THE SPECIAL ISSUE

The handful of papers which follow in this special issue of *Ocean and Coastal Management* have their origins in the 1990 *Congress on Coastal and Marine Tourism.* All of the authors have first-hand experience with the Broker-Local-Tourist model of tourism, having played, from time to time, the roles of locals and tourists, and, in several instances, management and private sector brokers. They approached this theme issue with a common desire to better articulate how coastal and marine tourism links nature with society. Concerned over the ways tourism has gone wrong, and intrigued by the ways it might go right (especially in the form of ecotourism), all of the authors recognize that the environmental and socio-cultural impacts of tourism urgently require the attention of a truly multidisciplinary force of analysts. The authors have gone their own ways in electing which tourism topics to study and which themes to develop. Appropriately, the papers reflect the special interests and backgrounds (government; the private sector; non-profit environmental, and research and educational organizations; academe) of a disciplinarily diverse and talented set of authors.

The four papers introduced below fall into two broad categories. The first three are primarily concerned with the consequences of tourism beyond what happens to the tourist. In a sense, the scope of the inquiry decreases from the general to the specific. Thus, Stewart's paper provides a language for appreciating the institutional character of marine conservation regimes. Agardy's paper narrows the focus to compare regimes in three tropical settings. Finally, Dahl concentrates on the details of a single case. The paper in the second group is, by contrast, devoted more to theory and method, and to how tourism has meaning to the tourist. Forestell's paper displays a model of learning

which promises to have broad application in marine and environmental education.

5.1 'Sustainable tourism development and marine conservation regimes' (Stewart)

In theory, preservation and development goals are nicely balanced in sustainable tourism development. In the practice of management, we find these goals are mixed in government portfolios in different proportions, depending on the abundance and status of the resources at stake, potential tourism and other demands, and the designs for living of traditional peoples. Complicating matters, we discover that the formal names of individual marine protected areas (e.g. national park, sanctuary, biosphere reserve) are not consistently associated with ranges of human uses and intensity levels permitted.

Keenly aware of this terminological problem, M. Carolyn Stewart focuses on institutional variability. Borrowing from the vocabulary of the International Union for the Conservation of Nature and National Resources, Stewart shows that idealized types of marine conservation regimes differ by ethic, objectives, and regulations. This conceptual contribution is augmented with references to regimes throughout the Pacific (e.g. in the Philippines, the Galapagos Islands, New Caledonia, Australia) which endorse marine tourism in different ways, and a practical discussion of the importance of community involvement in the management endeavor.

5.2 'Accommodating ecotourism in multiple use planning of coastal and marine protected areas' (Agardy)

Of all tourism types, ecotourism—the credo for which has become 'Take nothing but your memories, leave nothing but your footprints'—is the least invasive, hence the most compatible with preservationist objectives of marine protected areas. But, not even ecotourism can be counted upon to unfold gracefully, or to be immune to the 'boom and bust' touristic syndrome.

With this as backdrop, M. Tundi Agardy's paper leads us to ponder the different primary objectives emphasized at Sian Ka'an Biosphere Reserve in Quintana Roo, Mexico; Saba Marine Park in the Netherlands Antilles; and the Great Barrier Reef Marine Park in Queensland,

Australia. Agardy notes that each of these marine conservation regimes (see, Stewart, this volume) manifests a unique tourism-conservation symbiosis and provides a different lesson. Sian Ka'an succeeds as a microcosm, but comprehensive planning and growth management at the state level will be necessary to sustain this over the long-term. Saba Marine Park, created with nature-tourism in mind, is a positive example of local empowerment. Finally, the Great Barrier Reef Marine Park, where ecotourism was an afterthought, illustrates how administratively multifaceted and politically controversial the management of marine protected areas can become.

5.3 'Tourism development on the island of Pohnpei (Federated States of Micronesia): Sacredness, control and autonomy' (Dahl)

It is always disconcerting to be reminded that normative frameworks which appear so fair and promising when conceived at a distance can become questionable at the near shore. In this ethnographic case study of a small island in the Federated States of Micronesia, Dahl shows that marine ecotourism, because it would encourage face-to-face interaction on local turf, thereby posing a threat to belief and social systems, is not obviously superior to mass, enclave tourism which would instead segragate tourists from local people.

Once a kingdom, Pohnpei was subjected to six decades of colonial rule by Spain, Germany, and Japan. Today, the state is linked to the US by a special compact. Touristic resources include the Megalithic structures at the Nan Madol archaeological site, and an upland tropical rain forest where over 700 plants (many of which are endemic) can be viewed. In part because both of these destinations are sacred, the Nan Madol Foundation and the Nature Conservancy—examples of what can be called private, non-profit brokers—play important roles in determining the Pohnpeian version of sustainable tourism development. As Dahl points out, any outcome will be influenced by the desirability of foreign investment and the meshing of traditional and democratic political structures.

5.4 'If Leviathan has a face, does Gaia have a soul?: Incorporating environmental education in marine eco-tourism programs' (Forestell)

In theory, rewards of ecotourism accrue to the world at large in the form of protected environments and improved standards of living. However, ecotourism can be more than altruistic.

Paul H. Forestell agrees with the proposition that marine ecotourism programs can function as educational tools. He also knows full well that education is not automatic. In a nice Hawaiian figure-ground reversal, he uses whalewatching cruises as opportunities to conduct *in situ* studies not of whales, but of people learning through ecotourism. Specifically, Forestell partitions the whalewatching experience into several phases (each marked by different ecotouristic frames of mind and pedagogic opportunities) and presents a three-stage cognitive model of the educational process. His findings suggest that ecotourism, when properly delivered by trained brokers, can facilitate scientific as well as private understandings of natural processes. Ecotourism, Forestell points out, can be as serious as it is 'eco-chic,' offering, for example, excellent learning environments for reflection on the relative merits of mechanistic and Gaia-istic views of nature.

6 COMMENT

There are more questions than answers
And the more I find out, the less I know

—Johnny Nash lyrics (1972)

A few last remarks on the resolution of coastal and marine tourism conflicts are in order. The papers in this special issue attest in complementary ways to the widespread existence and complex nature of tourism controversies in the coastal zone. In substantiating the claim that marine tourism topics are worthy of our attention, the papers establish a foundation for a tourism speciality within the field of marine affairs.

The various marine tourism dilemmas identified in this volume qualify as social problems because people are wedded to causes and solutions.[24] Although the papers illustrate good and bad tourism experiences and propose new institutional and conceptual tools to improve the tourism record, readers are entitled to feel more challenged than satisfied.

Tourism problems—and the environmental and human issues subsumed in this category—can be solved, but this will not happen effortlessly. For the private sector to assist in the task, ethical guidance, as well as educational delivery systems, will be needed. For the public sector to develop coastal and marine tourism policies, it will be necessary to create new laws and regulatory regimes. This will require natural and social scientists to improve their battery of baseline measurement, monitoring, and impact assessment methodologies.

Even with such rationality, the exorcism of coastal and marine tourism demons is destined to be messy. Decisions about the trade-offs between development and preservation, society and environment, large and small scale, and beauty and profit cannot be fixed by science alone. Scientific input, while undeniably necessary, is not sufficient to answer normative questions. Ultimately, the outcomes of many marine tourism debates will hinge on personal values. Attitudes that people express about tourism, like those about the environment (Miller & Kirk, 1992), are often non-negotiable and cannot be averaged. Thus, we must learn to expect that tourism battles will frequently generate winners and losers, not compromises.

A complete response to coastal and marine tourism issues must involve researchers, policy analysts and program evaluators, planners, educators, and even poets. In its struggles with tourism, humankind—the single species in the ecosystem to have announced a concern for social responsibility—is wrestling with itself.

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NOTES

1. To illustrate, the 1992 United Nations Conferences on Environment and Development (also known as the Earth Summit) held in Rio de Janeiro, Brazil (3–14 June) was the largest international policy-making gathering in history. One hundred and seventy-eight nations were represented at the Earth Summit with 118 heads of state

personally in attendance (Brooke, 1992*b*; Stevens, 1992). The UN registered some 7000 delegates and 8000 journalists; the total number of participants was estimated at 35 000 persons (Brooke, 1992*b*). A related meeting held concurrently—the '1992 Global Forum'—included an open-air fair of 3500 non-governmental organizations and 650 exhibits which was expected to draw 15 000 environmentally oriented visitors daily over a 2-week period (Brooke, 1992*a*).

2. Supplementary discussions of the importance of marine tourism and the need for scientific and policy research are found in Miller & Auyong (1991*a*) and Miller (in press).
3. The *popular view* and the *sociological view* follow from the difference noted by cultural anthropologists between experience-near (*emic*) and experience-distant (*etic*) vocabularies. Emic (or popular) descriptions of the world are those which are faithful to cognitive distinctions made by members of a (sub)culture under study. Etic (or, in this instance, sociological) descriptions are those phrased in the scientific lexicon of the analyst. Ethnoscience is that branch of anthropology which takes both emic and etic accounts seriously (see, for example, Spradley, 1979, pp. 231–5).
4. Of course, tourism suppliers and those who inhabit tourism destinations, but are uninvolved in the business of tourism, express more stable, if sharply opposite, opinions on the matter.
5. Well-known introductory texts on the industry include Gee *et al.* (1984), Ritchie & Goeldner (1987), and McIntosh & Goeldner (1990).
6. For the best-known study of the size of the tourism industry, see The WEFA Group (1989, pp. 4, 20–1).
7. Statistical tourism terminology is imposing, but improving. The United Nations Conference on International Travel and Tourism held in Rome in 1963 began the work of establishing standards. In 1980, the World Tourism Organization defined 'international visitors' and 'domestic visitors' as cover terms for subcategories of 'tourists' and 'excursionists' (for some detail, see, Miller & Auyong, 1991*a*, p. 96). However, revised definitions were recommended by the International Conference on Travel and Tourism Statistics held in Ottawa in 1991. As Paci (1992, pp. 9–15) reports, international and domestic 'vistors' (and the subcategories of 'tourists' [overnight visitors] and 'same-day visitors') are 'travellers' whose travel is measured in tourism statistics. The actions of 'other travellers' (the second category of 'travellers') are not reflected in statistics.
8. Waters (1992, p. 8) has calculated total world receipts from domestic and international tourism for 1990 to be $2·66 trillion and, with an average annual increase of 5%, projects (excluding inflation and exchange rate fluctuations) the statistic to be $4·33 trillion by the year 2000.
9. Waters (1992, p. 7) surmises that, as a consequence of the Gulf War and a stagnant world economy, there was no increase in global tourism spending (and, possibly a small decline) in 1991.
10. For the importance of tourism to the economics of 248 nations (only several dozen of which lack coastlines) as well as regional travel trends, see Miller & Auyong (1991*a*).
11. Of Hawaii's gross state product of $27·6 million in 1990, tourism accounted for $9·4 million and construction related to tourism accounted for $4·1 million. While tourism is the state's major industry, its social value remains controversial. (Reinhold, 1993, pp. 1, 6).

12. However, the first 9 months of 1991 showed a decline of 8% in visitor arrivals. Waters (1992, p. 80) attributes this sharp drop to the loss of two air carriers, the recession in the US, and the Gulf War, among other factors.
13. Arguably, Americans are more self-conscious about being tourists than are, say, Europeans. If so, they might exhibit their ambivalence by finding it difficult to respond to the query 'Who is your favorite tourist?'
14. For anthropological examples, see Smith (1977). For a useful social psychological approach to cross-cultural encounters (e.g. involving tourists, students, diplomats, researchers, military personnel, and others) of differing durations, see Brislin (1981).
15. Other transitions can be equally worthy of study as can be inferred by this lament of a local in a California tourist town: 'The only thing worse than a tourist is a new resident!'
16. Tourism, for tourists, underwrites the social order. This is not to say tourism cannot concurrently undermine other social systems.
17. Durkeheim's 1964 (1914) insight was that social practices (of which religious rituals were convenient instances) hold society together. Collins' (1988, pp. 193–227) neo-Durkheimian model of ritual production works in the following way: Rituals require: (1) physical assembly of a group, (2) a common focus of attention and awareness of this, and (3) a common emotional mood. The ritual initiated, (2) and (3) recycle and build on one another. The process generates: (4) sacred objects symbolizing group membership, (5) emotional energy for participants, and (6) righteous resentment of those who would show disrespect for the sacred objects. Presumably, (4), (5), and (6), contribute to (1), (2), and (3) in subsequent ritual productions.

    Collins (1988, pp. 203–8) shows that the macrolevel sociology of Durkeheim is applied at the microsociological level in Goffman's orignial (e.g. 1959; 1967) treatments of interaction rituals in everyday life.
18. Bulmer's (1969, pp. 2–5) symbolic interaction has three premises: (1) human beings act towards things on the basis of the meaning that the things have for them, (2) the meaning of such things is derived from social interaction, and (3) meanings are handled, and modified through an interpretive process.
19. Mead's 1962 (1934) pp. 178, 335 view is that the self is 'essentially a social process;' reasoning is the carrying-on of a conversation between the 'I' and the 'me.'
20. The concept of the ugly tourist probably has its origins in the European invention of personally conducted group tours in the last century. Flandrau (1914, pp. 222–9) disapproved of American tourists in Mexico not only because they were underbred, but because their attitude rubbed off on locals. A taxonomy of ugly tourism, including the tacky, patronistic, and imperialistic variants, remains to be developed.
21. Goffman (1971, pp. 108–18) discusses accounts, together with 'requests' and 'apologies' as categories of remedial action. See, also Schlenker (1980, pp. 136–46).
22. Scott & Lyman (1968) refer to these as 'justifications.' Justifications and 'excuses' are the basic classes of accounts.
23. My virtual exemplars contrast with the 'virtual offenses' discussed by Goffman (1971).
24. Social problems are, as Fuller & Myers (1941, p. 25) noted in a classic paper, 'what people think they are.' For approaches to the study of the objective and subjective aspects of social problems, see Becker (1966), Merton & Nisbet (1971), Spector & Kituse (1987), and Best (1989).

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